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CUES, WATCHWORDS, PASSWORDS

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Community and Communication Jean-Jacques Rousseau invoked the long nights when hunter-foraging people gathered about the fire and entertained one another by story-telling, singing, and dancing. Friedrich Nietzsche invoked the artist compulsion which fashioned feasts and ceremonies. Collective work and defense against enemies or environmental dangers bring us together. In the market we are bound together by rights and obligations. At the same time every community is a community of language.

So much of that language is non-serious or nonsensical. Greetings, hailing or confirming whatever the other is doing or saying, and joking, teasing, and banter—much of the talk that goes on among us does not aim at truth but provokes smiles and laughter. Whoever laughs with us—or weeps with us—is one of us. In laughter, as in weeping, we recognize another as our kind, and at the same time are drawn to one another. We speak of what we laugh about, what we weep over: we bless and we curse. Blessing and cursing are fundamental modes of language, and express fundamental modes of community.

Philosophers, however, have especially been concerned with serious language. Collective work and common defense require language that formulates truly the way things are and what has to be done. The market requires informed commitments and binding pledges. In addition, philosophers have held that truth-telling—rational knowledge—produces community.

The terms of serious language are categories; they record the recognizable features of an entity or an event—features that recur as the moments pass, in this entity or event as in others like it. They thus

record what is recognizable by others. What is known rationally, objectively, exists for a community of rational subjects. To formulate an entity or event truthfully is to situate oneself in a series of observers and truth-tellers.

In addition, rational knowledge consists of statements for which reasons are or can be given. These reasons are not: Because our fathers, who founded our clan, nation, city, have taught us to do thus, or: because our gods have said this. Rational reasons invoke empirical evidence, or else necessary consequence from other statements. These are available to anyone with insight. The practice of giving, and demanding reasons submits every rational statement to question, to criticism, or to acceptance by just anyone with insight. Someone then who speaks rationally admits anyone endowed with insight as the judge of what he or she says. This practice invokes a potential rational community in principle coextensive with the human species—even potentially inclusive of aliens, if they can understand what humans say and are endowed with insight into empirical evidence and into necessary consequence between statements.

THE RATIONAL COMMUNITY

To learn a science is to learn a language. It is not simply to learn the set of statements taken to be true within that science, and the statements that formulate the evidence or the reasons that make them true. It is to learn a specific vocabulary, grammar, and rhetoric. To engage in a work and to learn a skill are likewise to learn a language. To learn automobile mechanics involves learning a specialized vocabulary, and learning the kinds of reasons that are accepted in the practice of repairing automobiles. To learn Scuba diving involves learning a specific language.

Communication within a scientific discipline, or among workers in a collective project, or among skilled athletes or performers, is based on determinations of what could count as observations, what standards of accuracy in determining observations are possible, how the words of common language are restricted and refined for use in different scientific disciplines and practical or technological uses. Further, there are determinations of what could count as an argument—in logic, in physics, in history, in literary criticism or in Bib-

lical scholarship, in economics, in penology, jurisprudence and military strategy, in medical treatment.

The more difficult scientific or technological work requires institutions which set up and finance research teams and laboratories to gather information and observations according to professional standards of accuracy and repeatability, institutions which select and train researchers, and certify and evaluate the researchers and technicians. Establishing what can and must be said about things requires institutions which select what research is to be published, and how it is to be judged.

In scientific and technological work, the decisions as to what counts as an observation and as an argument are made by experts. The experts do not validate their decisions by a structure of reasons found outside the science or the practice. Instead, they consider what taxonomy has been in use in the science so far, or what standards of accuracy in determining observations have been maintained until now. When they decree that new terms marking discriminations should be introduced, or new standards of accuracy, their expertise is validated by the specific scientific or technological community.

In learning a science, learning the language of a science, or in learning a skill, one thus enters into a system of power. One enters into a relationship of command and obedience with the experts. One will be trained in institutions, and the institutions determine who has authority to speak.

Individuals are ordered to formulate what they see and experience in the established concepts of the language and in forms that can be verified. Then an individual speaks as one in whose statement is implicated the logic and theories and cognitive methods of the rational community; he or she speaks as a representative, equivalent to and interchangeable with others, of the established truth. She speaks as a veterinarian, an electrician, a computer programmer, a public health nurse. He speaks as a citizen, informed about the traffic code, the banking practices, the dress codes of restaurants and public beaches. He formulates his anxiety attacks in terms of contemporary psychiatry; she names her aches and pains with the terminology of scientific medicine.

REPETITION AND LOSS OF INSIGHT

This picture of the rational community has been polemically contrasted with communities called traditional, whose common language is characterized as mythical or religious. The experts who regulate the discourse of these communities invoke the authority of ancestors or deities.

The rational community has also been contrasted since the beginning of Greek philosophy with collectivities whose talk has been characterized as common sense, doxa, or opinion. Martin Heidegger has forcefully brought back this polarity.[1] Here there do not seem to be identifiable experts; there is an interchangeability of speakers, to the point that the content of what they say is anonymous. There is just a stock of statements that is passed on from one to another. No one claims responsibility for these statements, no one answers for them, undertakes to supply evidence or reasons.

A collectivity that shares a stock of statements taken as common sense and a rational community seem polar opposites. Yet they coexist even at this very late date when citizens are schooled for years in the rational discourse of the sciences and technologies. In fact, there is a dynamic relationship between the two collectivities and the two languages. For intrinsic reasons rational discourse turns into anonymous talk.

Insight plays a founding and a verifying function in mathematics. A point, a straight line, a plane, a circle cannot be seen in the environment, which shows only extended spots, edges, surfaces, and round material things. Infinite dimensions, parallel lines that never meet, polyhedrons, the square of the hypotenuse, and the square root of minus one are engendered by a process of abstraction and idealization. A mind then *sees what is meant* by these terms: there is an insight at the basis of the mental operation that forms the notion of number, point, line, plane.

The elementary notions of mathematics—number, point, line—are then formalized; in analytic geometry one substitutes pure empty symbols, markers, for them: a, b, c; x, y, z. One can then calculate, according to rules, with them, losing sight of what they refer to, attending only to visible differences in the forms of the markers.

When one does a geometrical proof, one combines axioms according to formal rules; one ends up at a theorem. One proves the theo-

rem by working back from the theorem to the axioms. One does *see* that each step follows from the antecedents, and one does *see* what the theorem means. But once one has verified the proof one can use it without reactivating these insights. One need only remember that one has once verified it. One can then use it as a pure formula made of markers, to perform further calculations with it. One thus economizes all the time of insight. The great power of mathematics depends on its susceptibility to being used as a pure set of instruments of calculation with symbols whose meaning fades away.

A parallel process occurs in every scientific discipline, every technology. The discourse is set up with a set of statements formulating insights, put forth by individuals who have had these insights and can answer for them. But these statements are transformed into a body of anonymous statements that can be used without reactivating the insights, that can be combined like elements of a calculus.

The fading-away of insight in the practice of mathematics can bring it about that at the stage of furthest development of mathematics one no longer knows what mathematics *is about*. Controversies in the twentieth century about the legitimacy of new mathematical concepts such as imaginary numbers and transfinite numbers showed that mathematics had lost sight of what mathematical entities are: subsistent forms? formal properties of real and perceivable things? psychic entities, mental constructs? pure logical possibilities? This loss of the founding insights occurs in every science; physics continues its advances in the midst of unresolved controversies about the real, merely phenomenal, or even merely psychic status of the sense-data at the basis of all its observations. Cultural history constitutes a more and more extensive recording of languages, myths, institutions and a more and more rigorous mapping of the transformations and transmutations that are possible and actualized in the midst of unresolved controversies about the definition of meaning and reference in language, about the transcendent, purely sociological or economic referents of myths, about the ethnobiological, contractual, or power-dynamics reality of institutions.

The phenomenological philosophy founded by Edmund Husserl had as its mission to return to and recover the original insights at the basis of rational culture. Mathematicians calculate with their formulas, but they must periodically reactivate the original insights formulated in them. Husserl argued that the words of philosophy's vocabu-

lary have been repeated so often their users have lost sight of the original insights they contained; philosophers now only use them to construct arguments, like geometers construct theorems out of the given primary terms of the system. Heidegger argued that philosophers must return to the primary words—Being, substance, reason, truth—to rediscover the insights they contained.

THE ANONYMOUS TALK IN A SOCIETY

Our societies possess a stock of common knowledge. There does subsist islands of mythical or religious tradition, warranted by the authority of ancestors or deities. But the rest circulates anonymously, as Awhat is known. Statements are picked up, passed on, without anyone identified to take responsibility for those statements, to supply evidence or reasons. Heidegger contrasted insightful speech acts with this speaking that makes use of what is said—*das Gerede.*

Insight is proclaimed in an "Aha!"; it is then registered in an utterance that aims to record just this insight. An utterance that codes an insight subsists only by being maintained and verified by a speaker. One has to be able to repeat this utterance so that one can recall the insight when it has passed, in order to ascertain that it has occurred. "I say that S is p" is a statement that is not only a record but a pledge and a commitment. The repeatability results from an idealization operated on the utterance: one takes it ideally to be the same, when repeated, although the utterance cannot really be repeated on the same pitch, with the same tonal length, the same timbre. The utterance will be ideally the same whether repeated by oneself or by another.

What happens to observations when they get reformulated in such a way as to render them common, capable of being communicated? When "I say that S is p" is retained and communicated, it is converted into "(It is said that) S is p." The form "It is said that . . ." no longer formulates the singular situation about the speaker but the general format of the common world. In addition the subject that takes responsibility for his own utterance is elided. The speaker constitutes himself as a simple relay of formulations that are taken up from others, passed on to others. His own insight is cast in a form that could be the insight of anyone, anywhere.

The individual who no longer answers for his utterances loses sight of himself as a source of insight. And while insights can only function as representations of reality by being formulated in fixed and repeatable terms, in the process of becoming common they not only suffer an emptying out, they also begin to function as falsehoods. They no longer put forth the concrete layout of the singular environment about one who sees it, but fix only the general format of environments about anyone, anywhere.

"The talk" is, as Heidegger puts it, essentially erring—wandering from one situation to another. It picks up the general lines of things and situations, what anyone can see. It consists of generalities. But the real is always singular, and particular. No leaf in the forest is identical to any other; no two snowflakes that fall in Antarctica have the same form. Every situation in which we find ourselves is different from the situation in what anyone else finds himself. Heidegger then invokes authentic, authentifying speech—the insightful speech acts in the first person singular that formulate the face of the world concretely turned to the speaker.

If the talk is an emptying out of original speech acts that were insightful and responsible, if it is thus a fallen state of language, it is nonetheless primary and original. One enters language by picking up what is said—what others say, what one, anyone says, about the food, the furniture, the playground. The talk presents the environment to the child, to the visitor, to the immigrant, as already articulated. The talk formulates the main lines, the recurrent situations in the environment. The effort to formulate what is distinctive to one's own situation, to speak in the first person singular about the individual faces of things that present themselves to that speaker—this effort comes second. Within the language that outlines the general shapes of things and the recurrent scenes, the individual will try to use language to discriminate what is distinctive to the individual things and events he or she is open to.

In addition the common knowledge a society possesses is actually the basis for the elaboration of rational knowledge. Geology begins with the common knowledge about mountains and jungles, rivers and ocean shores formulated in the course of the inhabitation, migrations, journeys, and nomadism of humans. Biology, botany, pharmacology, and astronomy presuppose the common knowledge that first identified and located other animals, vegetables, minerals, and celes-

tial bodies. The mathematical calculations with which Claude Lévi-Strauss represents the elementary and composite relations of kinship of gender-based societies presuppose alliances and recognitions of descent with which those societies form, with which individuals associate without having calculated their forms of association mathematically, and interact with the anthropologist who comes to them. Technological operations still and always require the common knowledge of body maneuvers and skills of individuals who leave their beds and their homes for laboratories and factories. The common knowledge still locates for the scientific researcher his laboratory, his implements, and his books.

Rational knowledge does not only begin with the data formulated in common knowledge; it also derives its form from common knowledge. Scientific objectivity, which requires that every observation be repeatable and verifiable by others, by just anyone with the proper equipment, appears as a refinement of the commonness of common knowledge.

Heidegger sees common knowledge as a multiplicity of statements that circulate, that are picked up and passed on from one to another. The speakers then appear to him as simple relay points, equivalent and interchangeable with one another. Statements are taken up and repeated simply because they are what is said, because anyone, everyone says them. No one speaks in his own name, no one takes responsibility for what is said. Society appears as a simple multiplicity. Here we have arrived at the opposite of the reciprocal understanding supposed to characterize the rational community—and the opposite of the reciprocal recognition that was supposed to be exercised by those who speak as its representatives.

CUES, WATCHWORDS, PASSWORDS

In fact the talk does not just circulate, in all directions. Speakers are not just relay-points of anonymous refrains. They are ordered. There are directions, directives in the talk. Heidegger has not seen this because he has reduced the function of the talk to that of communicating information. He has taken its purpose is be transmitting what, of what one has seen about something or about some situation, can be seen by just anyone.

For Gilles Deleuze and Félix Guattari,[2] the talk instead communicates, and is contrived to communicate, not what someone has seen, but what someone has heard, what someone has been told to say. Most of what we pass on when we talk we ourselves have not seen at all—that the year 2000 is upon us, that is, in the Christian, not the Islamic or Buddhist, calender, that the Christian calender is dated from the birth of Jesus, who was born in a province of the Roman empire.... We transmit to others what we have been trained to say in geography class, by the tabloids, by the evangelists and psychotherapists on afternoon radio. Public opinion polls do not summarize what the public thinks about the Panama invasion or the bombing of Iraq; they simply sample the public on how well they have retained what the media news analysts have told them.

This is the case even about things we have seen: You come back from a trip to Oregon and tell it: The coast out there is covered with fir and pine forests. There are gorgeous sand dunes.... What you are recounting is the names you have been told to put on the trees there, and what your milieu expects you to say about the northwest coast.

No conversation starts from zero. "Looks like rain." "Everything's going up," one shopper says to another in the supermarket. Such utterances can be true or false, and even meaningful, when uttered among speakers who occupy a common space in nature and in the social world, and who share ways of looking and ways on selecting details to observe. Their meaning and rhetorical force follows much that has already been said. All that is taken as known and shared among interlocutors is what we call "common sense." We are appealing to common sense whenever we ask the mechanic what is wrong with our car, whenever we ask the store clerk what kind of shoe we should buy for tennis or for walking.

"Looks like rain" is not really a statement that issues out of a selective personal observation of the sky today and a remembered set of past such observations. What is rather remembered is what one has, since childhood, heard people say on days like this. What is this common sense? We take it to be a faculty in our brain that stores and centralizes a great deal of information. In fact common sense, Deleuze and Guattari say, is a faculty in our brain that receives and transmits the decrees that experts in a scientific domain or in a practical domain have given, the cues, signs, watchwords, slogans, and decrees that

"the community"—certain individuals in the group, pack, gang, milieu, or "society" have given.

Who are these people who have decreed how we must talk about the weather, California wines, rap music, the football game, cellular phones? These dominant voices can be identified. We arrive at the dorm with a fringed leather jacket painted silver from San Francisco or a pierced and studded tongue we got there one night when we were real stoned. There is a moment of hesitation: the group does not quite know what to say. Then the big man in the group says: "Cool." Or he says: "Where the fuck did you get that faggotty jacket? And you pierced your tongue—sick!" These words do not convey information to us. They instead impose what we have to say.

There is then, at the basis of conversation, a scattering of words that order (*mots d'order*). They are words that both set up a certain order in the course of the conversation and command the other speakers. These cues or watchwords are short and brief: "Cool." "Sick." "Faggoty." To get admitted into the in group, we have to catch on to a set of such words that order the way college jocks, or sorority sisters, or the Trench Coat gang talk. They are passwords. When we get our Ph.D. and a job, we have to catch on to what vocabulary to use when a department meeting is discussing changes in the curriculum, how long to take to express our opinion, what genial, affable, and serious tone of voice to use, how to glance at the department head and the other faculty members, what kind of small talk to engage in when we run into a senior professor in the hallway.

The cues, signs, watchwords, slogans, decrees need not be repeated to order the choice of words and of grammatical and rhetorical form, order the tone of voice and the rapidity or stentorian pace of our sentences. Order-words also command the informative or indicative content of our sentences.

A description is not a picture of what it describes. Of course there are names: robin, typewriter, refrigerator. But there is not a word for every separate item in the scene being described—like in a phonograph recording where there is a one-to-one correspondence between every sound and a mark in the grove of a record. Things are described by metaphor and metonymy. In the sentence: "All the evidence must first be sifted with acid tests, or with a microscope," we take "sift the evidence" to be a metaphor: "sift" would mean literally to put through a sieve. Would the literal version of that sentence be:

"All the evidence must first be examined . . . ?" But "examine" was in Latin *examino*, from *examen*, which designated the tongue of a balance. It thus meant "to weigh." The word "examine," as in the sentence: "all the evidence must first be examined . . . " has been used so often that the transfer of reference has become routine, stale, and is taken for granted. But metaphors are not just formed by fancy; they are ordered. In fact in a vision of movement, there are multiple visions of multiple movements. Then the word "movement" can be taken in multiple ways. When we use it in a certain kind of discourse—physics, traffic control, the discussion of the changes that occur in springtime, the direction of an argument, or a movement in cyberspace, in the information highway—we obey the cues that direct us to use the term in a specific way in a specific kind of discourse. There is no meaning in words apart from the dominant words, the order-words. In every feeling, every emotion, every passion, there are multiple emotions. At a wedding, the bride feels fear, anxiety, possessiveness, pride, nervousness at being center stage, etc. If she says what seems to be a literal word, "I'm so happy"—in fact a dead metaphor, "happy " originally designating the feeling that something has occurred by happenstance, by chance or by luck—she is obeying the decree that that is what brides should feel. "Aren't you happy?" is an order. If she says what is commonly called a metaphor—"I'm in heaven" —or what is commonly called metonymy—"My cunt is on fire"—she is obeying other decrees: of what one should say in church, or what one should say among really liberated, body-affirming, patriarchy-defying feminists.

The talk does not circulate in an anonymous, faceless multiplicity such as invoked by Heidegger's *Das Man*. A group, a pack, a gang, a milieu, "society," and a community are defined by the attractions and repulsions, the sympathies and antipathies, the alterations, the alliances, the penetrations and expansions that affect bodies coupled on to implements and to other bodies. To envision it, we should envision the emotional map, a passionate map of the neighborhood, the city, the province, as novelists do. William Faulkner maps out the territory for us by identifying the alliances between families and individuals, the expansions of some of them, entry and penetrations of newcomers, the old and new hatreds, the loyalties, friendships, and infatuations. The cues and watchwords that are uttered accompany and advance movements of force in such a map of society.

The collectives are multiple and overlapping. A man will, in the course of a day, speak "as a father has to" at home; then speak as the boss to his subordinates; then with his lover he will speak a childish lover's talk, nonsense; then in falling asleep, his sleeping mind will discourse in images about things that worried him during the day, or about things that still bug him from his childhood; then, when the telephone rings, he abruptly adopts a professional voice to speak with a business associate about the urgent matter that made him ring so late. In each case, it is a certain community of language, a certain practical collective that he couples onto.

Language orders. With its categories, speech identifies, discriminates, and classifies things in the perceived environment. Language can establish relationships between things that were not immediately perceived. Language also orders—commands—speakers to order, that is, to organize. Immanuel Kant said that as soon as we begin to think, we find ourselves under an imperative. Thought finds it must conceive things coherently and relate them consistently. Thought is from the first subject to an imperative for the universal and the necessary. But Deleuze and Guattari argue instead that the obedience involved in speaking is an obedience to order-words. In speaking to others, we transmit to them what we have been told to say. The talk is indirect discourse. Language essentially involves the function of telling someone what someone else has said, what someone else has said should be said—about bees, about flowers, about Paris and Moscow and ancient Rome. Everything we say has been ordered by what someone else said.

IDEOLOGY

The language that accompanies a collective work or a common defense effort or the production and exchange of commodities in a market does not only formulate truly the way things are and what has to be done. It also commands the individuals involved in that collectivity, and justifies what is being done to those individuals and to those outside it. Theorists have studied the common language of collectives, to map out the coherence and consistency of orders given and obeyed or resisted, and the consistency and coherence of the reasons elaborated to justify the collective work, defense effort, productive enterprise, or market to those within and those outside of it.

The account they produce has been labeled the "ideology" of those that dominate the collectivity.

Thorstein Veblen wrote up *The Theory of the Leisure Class*; he explains how cues, signs, watchwords, slogans, decrees, and also the body language, dress, taste in foods, clothing, and home furnishings all fit together in a consistent and coherent system. Since this systematic theory functions both to distinguish the leisure class from the working class and justify their own leisure, it cannot be taken as a simple representation of society. It functions to mask the real operations of the leisure class within society. Hence it has to be brought to light and interpreted by the sociologist. The over-all vision and the thorough-going cynicism of the theory of the leisure class are themselves powerful instruments of their domination. Karl Marx and now Pierre Bourdieu wrote up the theory of the working class. Neither has written up the theory of inner-city street people, whom Marx pushed aside as lumpenproletariat, totally unreliable in the worker's movement. For their ideas are naive; they are in fact mystified by the ruling class. Oscar Lewis saw this huge gap in our understanding of what he called the culture of poverty. He set out, during long decades spent in the slums of Mexico City, to discover and write up the world-view of the extremely poor. But his project came apart by itself: what he wrote was *The Children of Sanchez*, in fact the biographies of the various members of a single family, and what they said in their own words.

Street talk is essentially fragmentary. It does not affirm: All the capitalists are exploiters of workers, but: the owner of that gas station has shit for brains. When they drift from New York to Miami or Los Angeles, what they say about New Yorkers no longer applies to Angelinos. And words and expressions are short-lived; they die without leaving a trace. Facial expressions and gestures, sticking out one's tongue, making a farting noise accompanies their words, often takes the place of words. Fights too are expressive. An argument gets *settled* with a fight.

The lumpenproletariat, the inner-city poor, the slum-dwellers do not form a homogeneous class, but instead form packs, gangs, a milieu, and marginals linked by attractions and repulsions, sympathies and antipathies, alliances, and penetrations where individuals are bodies coupled on to a few implements and also to a few luxury objects and to other bodies. Cues, watchwords, passwords order

these couplings. They are discontinuous utterances. They are not derived from a preexisting world-view.

But is not that also true of the leisure class and the dominant classes of history? Michel Foucault does not attribute to the ruling powers of modern societies an over-all ideology that would justify and mask their program for domination. It is not simply that that would attribute an improbable cleverness and cynicism in that class. Foucault instead shows that the procedures of surveillance, control, and discipline of the modern institutional archipelago were invented piecemeal. Once mechanisms of social power are invented, they can be used in diverse ways, one of which is dominance. The cues and watchwords that order these uses are also invented piecemeal. What gives consistency and coherence to the language and practice of power is not an overall theory of domination—which the social critique in fact does not unearth but constructs—but precisely the peculiar force of fragmentary, discontinuous order-words in local power-couplings.

SPEAKING FOR ONESELF

In opposition to the talk current in the anonymous multitude, Heidegger invokes authentic, authentifying speech—the insightful speech acts in the first person singular, formulating one's own situation, that is, the face of the world concretely turned to the speaker. It was anxiety, the premonition of death singling one out, that silences one in the midst of the talk.

But this standing forth as a subject, as one who speaks in his own name, occurs when it is called forth by juridic or quasi-juridic acts which assign to individuals the right to speak. Most of the time one does not speak in one's own name—one passes on the kind of remark that one has been ordered to say: "It's raining again in State College: grim day. . . . " When one does speak in one's own name, it is because one has a duty to speak in one's own name. There are periodic examinations to verify whether the students have mastered the authorities of the discipline. The professor calls upon the student: "What does Nietzsche say about guilt?" Then she says: "But what do you think?" (How the student resists the question!) "Write an essay." The sociology, modern languages, or philosophy professor herself will be expected to periodically give papers at conferences, displaying her expertise of the field, the canonical authorities. But a senior professor

is expected to put forth some thesis or judgment in her own name. At infrequent intervals the nurse will be called upon to use her own judgment, make her own diagnosis. The veterinarian normally speaks as a representative of the current state of veterinary science, but from time to time the client demands he formulate his own judgement. His judgment will be critically appraised, perhaps by another veterinarian called upon to give a second opinion. If disastrous, he may be summoned in a malpractice suit. The authentic speech is then not simply a soliloquy before the oncoming night of death.

Heidegger emphasizes the recurrent nature of the talk. Phrases, statements pass from one to another without change, on a wave that extends indefinitely back into the past, endlessly into the future. To experience oneself as one crest of that wave is to feel caught up in the timelessness or eternity of these forms. In *Portrait of a Man Unknown*[3] Nathalie Sarraute has diagramed clairvoyantly how participating in the daily talk of the neighborhood functions to obliterate the sense of one's own mortality. Heidegger then invokes anxiety, which is a premonition of one's oncoming death, as the force that drives one out of the talk, into the reticence and silence from which one will emerge to speak with one's own voice.

But is not this anxiety, this premonition of death in the talk itself? Every order-word, Deleuze and Guattari say, is a verdict, a death sentence. It threatens an eventual death to the one it orders, or orders him or her to inflict death on someone else. "It always implies a death sentence, even if it has been considerably softened, becoming symbolic, initiatory, temporary, etc."[4] When a father orders his son "You will do this," "You will not do that," he is cutting his son down. There is involved a threat of punishment, a partial death. At the same time, every order-word is a cry of alarm, and an incitement to flee. "You will do this," "You will not do that": these are warnings. One is still obeying it, that is, regulating one's action by it, if one flees.

Death is not only a limit, an end, in time; it is also a limit in space. One ceases to traverse space. But every order-word limits the space in which we live. The father orders his son: "You keep out of there." "Don't touch that." "Don't go there." The cue that orders the talk of the group, pack, gang, milieu, "society," or rational community, scientific discipline or technological team and orders one's entry into it, threatens exclusion and effacement from it.

There is then no question of escaping order-words. Our problem is to escape the death sentence, the verdict they contain, and finding in them a directive of how to flee. America—love it or leave it! Alan Ginsburg finds a way to love it: the America of sharecroppers, hoboes, Jewish immigrants from Russia, the Wobblies, open roads, the Great Plains, the Pacific coast, Walt Whitman.... In coming to speak with his own voice, Ginsburg was in fact obeying the watch-words, slogans, decrees, and verdicts being voiced in the America society about him.

NOTES

1 Martin Heidegger, *Being and Time*, trans. John Macquarrie and Edward Robinson (New York: Harper & Row, 1962), 211–4.

2 Gilles Deleuze and Félix Guattari, *A Thousand Plateaus*, trans. Brian Massumi (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 1987), 75–110.

3 Nathalie Sarraute, *Portrait of a Man Unknown*, trans. Maria Jolas (New York: George Braziller, 1958).

4 *A Thousand Plateaus*, 107.